

Church, but in practice they often set themselves up as legal guardians. Gregory of Nazianzus' comparison of the relation of Church and state to that of the soul and body became classic. It has remained so to our day, appearing in the writings of Thomas Aquinas and down through the centuries to Leo XIII's *Immortale Dei*.

The Middle Ages were influenced by Augustine's idea that a non-Christian state exercised only an imperfect form of justice. This was taken up by Gregory the Great, who laid the foundation of a pontifical state independent of the emperor then residing in Constantinople. After its apogee in the thirteenth century, there was a rapid decline of papal power. Absolute independence of the state from the Church followed the establishment of papal residence in Avignon. A separatist movement in politics marked the end of the Middle Ages and the beginning of the modern era.

In conclusion Pilati underlines the difference in theories of ecclesiastical jurisdiction. At one extreme we have those with heretical tendencies insisting that the temporal ruler have some control over Church discipline; at the other, the pseudohierocrats consider only the Mystical Body of the Church, approving the intervention of the Church in temporal matters, not *regulariter* but *casualiter*. In between, we find the hierocratic system, the essence of which is the conception of the universal Church as a body corporate and politic, comprising all Christians. It holds that the pope has *potestas* from his monarchic position authorizing him to intervene in temporal matters for the good of the Church. Pilati finds that the famous theory of the two powers, attributed *de iure* to the pope, now has a meaning which is penal rather than political. Consequently, temporal power must be studied under two aspects: the power proper and that used to defend the Church.

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FE CATÓLICA E IGLESIAS Y SECTAS DE LA REFORMA. By Prudencio Damboriena, S.J. Madrid: Editorial Razón y Fe, 1961. Pp. xvii + 1228.

The present volume was inspired by Fr. Damboriena's association with the Roman Congregation of the Council (of which he is a consultant), whose members recommended that he write an interpretative work on Protestantism. His competence is unquestionable, coming from years of personal experience in Europe, America, and the Far East, and from the extensive research he has done in lecturing on Protestant theology at the Gregorian University. The immediate impetus for the book was the heavy inroads of Protestantism in Latin America, which underlined the need for wider and deeper knowledge of Protestant history and belief among the clergy and lay leaders in Spain and the South American countries.

Before examining the various religious bodies in detail, D. analyzes the historical context in which Protestantism was born in the sixteenth century. He sees the Reformation as partly the result of a decadent religious spirit, which evoked from Adrian VI the most critical commentary of clerical laxity in the annals of the papacy, and partly the fruit of a messianic drive by men of genius who felt they had a divine mission to reform not merely the Church's morals and discipline but her dogma as well. He surveys a large body of Protestant writing that pictures the Reformation as a great, if not unmixed, blessing to the Christian people; but he concludes that, when the ledger is balanced, the Reformation must be held responsible for causing the most serious division in the Mystical Body since the time of Christ, and strongly contributing to the religious agnosticism that has entered the mainstream of Western civilization.

In the four centuries since the Reformation, D. traces five periods of development. During the sixteenth century, in spite of political conflicts and struggling efforts to systematize new teachings, the dominant tone was confessional orthodoxy, which built substantially on the principles of Luther, Calvin, and Melancthon. Next came a period of intense doctrinal evolution, characterized by the emergence of the Free Church groups, the Puritans, Baptists, and Quakers. This ushered in the pietistic movements on the Continent and in England, typified by the Moravians and the Methodists, which, in turn, provoked and were balanced by the rise of deism in Britain and France, and the *Aufklärung* in Germany.

The nineteenth century was mainly rationalistic, when authors like Ritschl and Wellhausen challenged the epistemological and historical foundations of revelation and swept aside anything that was essentially supernatural in the Christian faith. Harnack represented the high-water mark of a Protestant rationalism whose self-assurance was reinforced by an exhaustive scholarship on the early centuries of the Christian era.

Rationalism met a powerful reaction since 1900 in a rediscovery of Kierkegaard and a Barthian theology of crisis that has awakened the Protestant world to its original dogmatic heritage. However, D. thinks that much of the so-called neo-orthodoxy, especially in the United States, is more nominal than real. Tillich and Reinhold Niebuhr are cited as examples. Neither believes in the Incarnation. Tillich denies it because of the "incompatibility of union between the finite and infinite," and for Niebuhr, Christology came of the unwarranted mating of Greek philosophy with the Gospels, when the councils ventured to define the symbol of a God-man "into a truth of speculative reason."

The newest and most promising phase of Protestant history is the ecumenical movement. D. contrasts the unitive efforts in the World Council

of Churches with the Catholic concept of unity, based on dogmatic ground and assured by the authority of an infallible primacy. He isolates the principal obstacle to Protestant sympathy with the Catholic solution of Christian disunity as the unwillingness to barter the advantages of doctrinal freedom for the sake of a unity that, for many church bodies, would mean grave denominational loss.

In the central portion of the book, D. covers all the major and most of the minor denominations currently active in world Protestantism. They are grouped along historical lines and include the Lutherans, Reformed, Anglican, and "heterogeneous sects" ranging from the Mennonites to Christian Science. American Protestantism stands out as the most sectarian.

Treating of the Wesleyan doctrine of salvation, D. properly notes that according to Methodism the traditional Protestant theory of a corrupt nature is modified in the "Catholic" direction of a grace that raises man above the level of justification, where his sins are no longer imputed, to the status of a child of God. What the author might have noted was that Protestant thought in English-speaking countries has been radically changed by this outlook, which includes the notion of showing one's love for God by works of charity for the neighbor; it helps to explain the social consciousness and achievements of nations like the United States, where Wesleyan ideals have been influential for upwards of two centuries.

The final section treats at length of Protestant evangelism, which has found expression in the world-wide mission apostolate, the organization of such movements as the Y.M.C.A., and most recently in the joining of forces between the World Council of Churches and the International Missionary Council. Evaluating the work of ecumenical zeal, D. is more restrained than might be expected. His intimate knowledge of Protestant mission work in traditionally Catholic countries makes him wary of the future until this basic problem of competitive evangelism is solved.

Fe católica is a monumental work that may well become the standard reference for a Catholic appraisal of modern Protestantism. Its sources are mainly Protestant, firsthand, and interpreted with a fairness and balance that invite ready acceptance. Yet, no doubt is left about the major premise on which the book rests, that Catholicism is the only authentic form of Christianity and that Protestantism, therefore, is a deviation. If its focus is more on Protestantism as a religious system than on Protestants as religious people, this was dictated by the author's immediate purpose. He wants to give Catholics in Spain and Spanish America some of the information they need to meet the challenge expressed by the research director for the Latin American missions of the National Council of

Churches. "Never before," he said, "throughout the four hundred fifty years of its presence in history, has Protestantism reached such heights of apostolic passion and ecumenical vitality as of today in Hispanic America."

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MISIONOLOGÍA: PROBLEMAS INTRODUCTORIAS Y CIENCIAS AUXILIARES. By Angel Santos Hernández, S.J. Santander: Editorial "Sal Terrae," 1961. Pp. 570.

S. intends to prepare a complete treatise on missiology, several volumes of which have already appeared. This work presents an introduction to the science and the relation of four other sciences to the missionary apostolate: ethnology, history of religions, linguistics, and colonization.

The first problem discussed is the meaning of the word "mission." The usual meanings are given. But the major part of the section is given to the juridical meaning of mission. S. holds for the strict definition that those areas subject to the Sacred Congregation De Propaganda Fide alone are to be called juridically mission territories. It is stated that adherence to this definition will eliminate much of the confusion which surrounds the use of the word at the present time. Certainly there has been a confusing use of the words "mission" and "mission land" recently, when writers can describe France as a mission country. S. is right in saying that such usage can be only analogical, even though the Church is confronted with dechristianized masses in former Christian countries. Too much space, however, is given to the discussion of the usage of the word. In spite of the neat solution of confusion found by limiting the word to territories subject to the jurisdiction of Propaganda, there still is confusion. The Scandinavian countries are subject to Propaganda and so must be considered mission territories. The Moslem countries of the Middle East are subject to the Oriental Congregation and would not then be considered mission territories juridically. Pakistan, a Moslem country, is under Propaganda; Iran is not. That does seem somewhat confusing. Such a division apparently looks more to the convenience of administration than to the objective definition of what constitutes an area a mission territory.

The next section describes the development of a missiology among the Protestant denominations, together with a summary of present Protestant mission theology. This is followed by a historical survey of the slow and laborious effort within Catholicism to elaborate a more specific definition and description of the missionary action of the Church. The work of Streit and Schmidlin is treated at length, as is the controversy about which of them was the father of modern missiology in the Church. This is followed